Birth into Captivity and the Reproductive Generation: Accounting for U.S. Births, 1790-1859

Manuscript status: Independent research-note draft for hypothetical scholarly submission. Not peer reviewed, submitted, or endorsed by the originating research client. All estimates are historical reconstructions, not an independent contemporary census of births. Source-critical checking of Haines-Sutch's table documentation and Hacker's fertility assumptions remains part of a full receiving review.

Candidate journal: The History of the Family: An International Quarterly, research/data note or short methodological article. This journal studies household formation, family demography and historical population processes. A companion conceptual paper concerns the future-oriented ideology of racial reproduction; it must not be needed to reproduce any of the numbers below.

Abstract

How many births within the historical United States occurred under hereditary enslavement, and what is the proper denominator for expressing that contribution to a society's reproductive generation? This research note reconstructs shares of all estimated national births occurring into slavery between 1790 and 1859. The numerator is J. David Hacker's (2020) modeled decennial count of births into slavery; the denominator for 1800-1859 is the annual number of national births in the Historical Statistics of the United States reconstruction by Michael Haines and Richard Sutch. Because the latter series does not report annual births for 1790-1799, an explicitly assumed crude birth rate of 55 per thousand is applied to Haines's mean mid-decade population of 4.520 million, with a 45-65 per-thousand sensitivity analysis. The resulting estimates are 17.20% in 1800-1849, 17.13% in 1790-1849, and 16.82% in 1790-1859. The last two point estimates vary within 16.89-17.37% and 16.65-16.99%, respectively, over the assumed 1790s birth-rate range; these are not confidence intervals for overall historical uncertainty. The study distinguishes births from population stocks and net migration, the historical census's exclusions from a census of all births on Indigenous territories, and heredity of enslaved status from deliberate direction of particular conceptions. The estimated share identifies the scale of an expropriated reproductive generation. It does not by itself estimate maternal coercion, institutional profit from those births, or the causal dependence of white settler households on enslaved people's reproduction.

Keywords: historical demography; slavery; fertility; births; social reproduction; family history; early United States; population measurement.

1. Introduction: a question of what the polity reproduced

A birth within a state cannot be assumed to reproduce membership in that state's political community. In nineteenth-century United States slavery, the child's juridical condition generally followed the enslaved mother. A birth could therefore reproduce an enslaver's property claim, a household's compelled labor resources, and a legally subordinated line of descendants rather than the liberty and equal civic standing of the newborn. Hortense Spillers's (1987) study of kinship grammar and Jennifer L. Morgan's (2021) study of reproduction within Atlantic slavery explain why this is not an abstract statistical curiosity. The legal and economic treatment of birth was part of the social order itself.

A related empirical question is the share of the state's total reproductive generation entering slavery. Popular presentations have sometimes treated the striking magnitude of the institution as an estimate that one-quarter of all United States births in a particular early-national period were births into captivity. Such a number is only useful if the

geographic and legal population, interval, numerator, and denominator are identical or their differences are explicitly reconstructed. For 1790-1850, the historical United States did not possess national complete civil birth registration. Both enslaved-birth totals and all-birth totals used here are modeled estimates. This note does not pretend to discover individual mothers in contemporary birth certificates; it calculates a precisely reproducible ratio of existing historical reconstructions.

The analytical claim is deliberately bounded. A substantial proportion of modeled births among the population counted as the United States entered life in a hereditary system of enslavement. Its percentage does not measure which pregnancies were coerced or assigned a purpose by owners, and it does not automatically identify the relative share of social production undertaken by enslaved families. Nor can the ratio settle whether populations classified as white relied predominantly on immigration to reproduce themselves. Those are different units of observation, with different comparisons required.

This distinction makes the accounting both historically serious and useful. The denominator is not simply a neutral national container. Early federal censuses excluded many Indigenous residents and shifted territorial coverage as the United States expanded. A national share of births within the population its demographers retrospectively count is not a share of all human births on lands now treated as the national territory. The state's definition of a population is itself part of the historical process requiring explanation.

2. Sources, temporal units, and source-critical method

2.1 Captive-birth numerator

J. David Hacker's article, "From '20. and odd' to 10 million: The growth of the slave population in the United States" (Slavery & Abolition, 2020), estimates the total number of people who ever lived under slavery in the United States, using decennial population counts, historical enslaved-population growth, birth-rate assumptions, and import estimates. Table 1, column 7, reports the number of births into slavery by decade. For 1790-1859 the series is:

1790s 403,648; 1800s 583,395; 1810s 759,768; 1820s 1,003,859; 1830s 1,280,680; 1840s 1,539,820; 1850s 1,865,898.

The distinction between Table 1 column 7 (births) and the next column (people imported), or the later column (combined births and imports), is essential. A denominator of all births cannot correctly be paired with a numerator that includes imported persons. Neither the decennial growth of the stock of enslaved persons nor the total number ever enslaved measures births in a particular decade.

Hacker's methodology involves assumptions about fertility and statistical coverage, including adjustments for slave populations in territories not enumerated in certain federal censuses. The numerator is therefore not exact to the reported unit despite being presented as an integer. The historical uncertainty around these estimates must be retained; the precision displayed here is arithmetic reproduction of a cited series, not evidence that we know the actual number of individual births exactly.

2.2 National-birth denominator

The Historical Statistics of the United States: Millennial Edition national demographic series, prepared by Michael R. Haines and Richard Sutch (Table Aa9-Aa14), gives estimated annual U.S. births beginning in 1800. The values are published in thousands. Summing the relevant years, rather than using the total change of the population, gives:

1800s 3,332,000; 1810s 4,375,000; 1820s 5,753,000; 1830s 7,483,000; 1840s 9,095,000; 1850s

11,694,000.

Summing the national birth column for 1800-1849 gives 30,038,000. Summing through 1859 gives 41,732,000. These values include births across the enumerated/reconstructed U.S. population, not just births among free people, people classified white, women legally married, or persons living in regions participating in slavery. The inclusion of births to enslaved mothers in the total is what makes the numerator a subset of the denominator.

These are annual national estimates, not original individual birth registers. Their documentation and reconciliation to historical population stocks need independent replication before submission, especially because early nineteenth-century boundary changes and territories outside federal census enumeration complicate both sources.

2.3 The missing 1790s decade

Table Aa9-Aa14 supplies national population estimates in the 1790s but leaves annual births and deaths blank until 1800. Thus a historical 1790-1849 or 1790-1859 fraction cannot be computed from its printed birth column alone. Haines's distinct Table Aa15-Aa21 reports a 1790-1800 mean mid-decade population of 4.520 million and an estimated natural increase rate of 26.49 per thousand, not an observed crude birth rate. It is an error to relabel natural increase as births.

For a transparent first approximation, set the 1790s crude birth rate to 55 per thousand per year. Then births in 1790-1799 are estimated as:

B{1790s}=4{,}520{,}000 \times 10 \times (55/1000)=2{,}486{,}000.

We vary this assumed rate to 45, 50, 55, 60, and 65 births per thousand per year. This is a scenario sensitivity exercise only. The 1790s birth series is not observed in either source; the sensitivity range does not capture uncertainty in Hacker's captive-birth estimate, regional population disparities, enslaved and free fertility differentials, or imperfect enumeration.

2.4 Estimator and period convention

Let Sd denote estimated births into slavery in decade d from Hacker, and By denote reconstructed births among the national population in calendar year y from Haines-Sutch, summed by decade. For any collection of matched years I:

\widehat pI=\frac{\sum{d\subset I}Sd}{\sum{y\in I}By}

with the 1790s denominator replaced by the above assumption where I begins in 1790.

The quoted period 1790-1850 can mean births from 1790 through 1849, or include 1850. This study explicitly adopts half-open decennial intervals, so the period 1790-1849 contains 1790 through December 1849 and 1790-1859 includes all of the 1850s. Hacker's 1850s numerator cannot be divided into annual 1850 births without a new assumption, so reporting an exact 1790-through-1850 ratio would imply unsupported precision. The proposed 1776-1860 claim is outside the present estimate; extending it backward requires harmonized colonial-era denominators and post-1776 frontier jurisdictions.

All divisions are calculated from raw source values in the companion archived data carrier: \`data/records/2026-10-17-captive-birth-shares-source-series.json\`. The Engineering CAIRN record reader accepts the source's exact NI address and extracts selected values through a bounded JSON pointer. A source read reproduces the evidence carrier, not the correctness of its historical interpretation or the original authors' estimators.

3. Results

3.1 Decade reconstruction

Birth years | Estimated births into slavery | Estimated total U.S. births | Captive share (%)
1790-1799 | 403,648 | 2,486,000 | 16.24
1800-1809 | 583,395 | 3,332,000 | 17.51
1810-1819 | 759,768 | 4,375,000 | 17.37
1820-1829 | 1,003,859 | 5,753,000 | 17.45
1830-1839 | 1,280,680 | 7,483,000 | 17.11
1840-1849 | 1,539,820 | 9,095,000 | 16.93
1850-1859 | 1,865,898 | 11,694,000 | 15.96

1790s denominator and share depend upon the assumed crude birth rate of 55 per thousand; all other denominators are summed from Haines-Sutch's annual estimated-birth column. Numerators are Hacker's modeled column-7 birth totals. Percentages are rounded from unrounded ratios; do not sum rounded percentages.

The level of captive births increased markedly: from approximately 403,648 in the 1790s to 1,865,898 in the 1850s. Yet the proportion of all reconstructed national births did not grow in a comparable monotonic fashion. This is important because population increases in the free states, changes in national territorial coverage, and rising births among nonenslaved residents all affect the denominator. A stable or declining share does not mean fewer people were born into slavery; here the absolute number increased.

3.2 Period aggregates

Window | Estimated captive births | Estimated total births | Captive share
1800-1849 (observed-estimate birth denominator available) | 5,167,522 | 30,038,000 | 17.20%
1790-1849 (1790s rate assumption) | 5,571,170 | 32,524,000 | 17.13%
1790-1859 (1790s rate assumption) | 7,437,068 | 44,218,000 | 16.82%

The values suggest roughly one in six, rather than the proposed one in four, of all births in the selected counted-population windows. This is an estimate about the classification and legal condition of newborns; it is not a measurement of how many parents were forced to conceive or the proportion of wealth attributable to enslaved production.

3.3 Sensitivity of the unobserved 1790s denominator

Assumed 1790s crude birth rate / 1,000/year | Est. captive-birth share, 1790-1849 | Est. captive-birth share, 1790-1859
45 | 17.37% | 16.99%
50 | 17.25% | 16.91%
55 (reference assumption) | 17.13% | 16.82%
60 | 17.01% | 16.73%
65 | 16.89% | 16.65%

Because the assumed 1790s decade contributes less to the total denominator than subsequent decades, changing its crude birth rate through this deliberately wide range changes the overall period fraction relatively modestly. That limited sensitivity is a property of the chosen perturbation, not proof that the historical 17% estimate is tightly identified. Hacker's numerator is itself model-based, Haines-Sutch's later birth totals are reconstructed estimates, and multiple definition and coverage choices are shared across decades. Those uncertainties are neither independent observations nor summed variances suitable for an unqualified standard error.

3.4 The immigration hypothesis is a separate stock-flow problem

A client question about settler social reproduction also asks whether colonial or postcolonial populations reproduce themselves locally or predominantly persist through immigration. The national series does not support a generalized inference of immigrant-dependent nineteenth-century U.S. growth. Haines's Table Aa15-Aa21 records migration's contributions to overall national population growth as 11.9% for 1790-1800, 13.5% for 1800-1810, 13.7% for 1810-1820, 7.1% for 1820-1830, 16.9% for 1830-1840, 27.0% for 1840-1850, and 32.3% for 1850-1860. Every decade of this period shows growth predominantly from births exceeding deaths. Population-scale stability through natural increase is therefore evidenced at the national level.

But these percentages are ratios of components of net growth, not ratios of births and not race-specific estimates. The descendants of immigrants may subsequently be born locally and count toward natural increase. In contrast, a particular mining town, plantation frontier, urban labor market, marriage cohort, denominational community, or racially restricted group might depend heavily on replenishment from outside. The national growth components cannot answer whether those subpopulations sustained themselves without migration. For each proposed local case one must collect linked vital events, age-sex structure and movement rather than substituting the national rate.

Thus two potentially true statements must be allowed to coexist: national nineteenth-century U.S. population growth was largely natural, while particular settler institutions could depend on imported labor, families and capital to maintain their local reproduction. The present birth numerator is even less capable of deciding a proposition about "white" locally born replacement because it was selected by enslaved legal condition, not by a stable ancestry classifier.

4. A birth's membership and economic meaning

The denominator constructed by historical population accounting is a set of births occurring among the reconstructed residents of the state. It is not a sample of its authorized political members. Under hereditary slavery a child's legal status often followed the enslaved mother, a rule famously established in colonial Virginia in 1662. This was an institutional operation turning kinship and procreation into the continuation of a legally captive line. Among its material consequences were claims to future compelled labor, sale, inheritance, and debt security (Morgan 2021; Spillers 1987; Alphonso 2023).

The relationship between property and the future is especially important. Alphonso's preprint documents antebellum courts recognizing increase and future increase of enslaved women as distinct property interests. Its findings still require archival verification of the underlying cases before being treated as definitive, and the paper remains a non-peer-reviewed source at the date of this note. Nevertheless, the legal-historical question it raises is conceptually independent of a statistical birth share: a future person could be claimed as a contingent property interest before conception. The social order could attempt to reproduce value from prospective descendants without granting them property rights, liberty or political standing.

This suggests an important epistemic distinction. Biological events, legal effects of those events, and economic capitalization of possible future events are not equivalent. A birth count estimates the first; slave law structures the second; probate, credit, insurance, plantation books and court records must establish the third. A ratio of national births cannot be mechanically converted into an estimate of material contribution to capitalism or the governing state without evidence linking events to those financial and institutional relations.

Nor can it be equated with the prevalence of organized breeding plantations. The law's confiscation of reproductive futures operated across plantations and households regardless of whether individual pregnancies were arranged by an enslaver. Enslaved people formed kinship relations, maintained care networks, contested their captivity and sometimes resisted sexual coercion. A defensible economic history must account for those lives as people acting under violence, not as a biologically self-propelled factory whose sole output was labor.

5. The limits imposed by the state's population boundary

The term births in the United States sounds geographical, but historical population boundaries do not describe all human communities living on the lands that now fall within the state's claim. Federal census law long distinguished Indigenous persons not taxed and excluded many Indigenous residents from the population counted for representation. Conquest and annexation changed which territories and peoples were included; legal conditions of free and enslaved persons changed in different regions over the period. Hacker explicitly discusses adjustments for some enslaved populations not enumerated in the earlier censuses. The denominator used in this paper inherits the reconstruction's historical geographic and legal framing.

Therefore the fraction computed here is a share of estimated births within the historically reconstructed national population, not the proportion of all babies born on North American land subsequently annexed by the United States. It cannot measure the reproductive vitality or losses of Indigenous nations. Such peoples are not an error term created by the federal census; their sovereignty and families precede the state's statistical boundary. A proper comparative study of settler reproduction would place Indigenous demographic histories beside settler classification and legal control without treating the first as a subset of the second.

The same warning applies to the race label white. Census legal categories changed historically, and the socially privileged settler category could incorporate or exclude migrants and descendants through formal status changes. An increase of people classified white is consequently not always the same as an increase in a biologically isolated population-no such white species population is assumed. Reconstructing "white natural increase" requires source-specific classification rules and ideally linked individual-level records, not a demographic identity imposed retrospectively.

6. What follows and what does not

The central empirical finding is consequential even though it does not confirm the more dramatic proposed percentage: roughly one-sixth of national births, in these particular historical reconstructions, occurred into a legally captive condition during 1790-1859. Approximately 7.44 million modeled births into slavery in those seventy years help explain how deeply the institution extended into the generation-by-generation reproduction of society. The statistic is not merely a measure of persons employed as labor; it shows the assignment of bondage at birth was structurally important to the continuation of the United States.

The result does not independently establish the stronger causal proposition that the white settler population could not reproduce itself while relying on enslaved people's births. The national population grew largely through natural increase, including births of enslaved people. To show displacement, one would need compare white households' reproductive behavior to economic access to enslaved labor, age structure, wealth, and location, and estimate outcomes under plausible non-slaveholding conditions. Wanamaker (2014) offers an econometric attempt involving slaveholder fertility and child prices, but a household substitution mechanism cannot be promoted into a national claim of white extinction.

Similarly, the result does not resolve whether an ideological quest for allegedly ideal white

progenitors was willing to spend the lives of existing white persons in its pursuit. That is the companion paper's conceptual and archival problem. The two papers can be placed in dialogue because one shows an immense material substrate of expropriated reproduction and the other studies the variable objectives of white-racial social reproduction. But neither paper may claim to have causally proved the other from a shared word such as increase.

A more demanding historical-demographic research program would estimate, at the county or household level, three separate trajectories: local births and deaths among those classified settlers; imported adults and later locally born children of immigrants; and reproductive activities denied inclusion yet used to reproduce property and government. The linkage to particular institutions should be judged against source provenance and competing explanations, not against an expectation that the client's theory must come out true.

7. Limitations, research ethics, and contribution

Five limitations make this note unsuitable as a population-level causal experiment. First, both numerator and denominator are reconstructed rather than directly enumerated births. Second, the 1790s birth denominator is explicitly assumed because the annual source records no births in that decade. Third, changing territorial boundaries and exclusion of Indigenous populations prevent global interpretation of "all births." Fourth, modeled birth-to-slavery counts cannot distinguish owners' arranged conceptions from births within freely formed or constrained relationships. Fifth, the fraction does not measure institutional accumulation, economic output, or demographically self-replacing settlers.

Nonetheless the estimate is fully transparent within the scope of its assumptions. An independent reader can recover the cited decennial totals and annual birth estimates, sum the chosen intervals, change the assumed 1790s rate, and compare with the reported figures. These properties make it an auditable historical-demography note rather than an unsupported "napkin math" assertion.

The contribution is therefore twofold: a specific, reproducible percentage identifying the scale of captive births within the statistical generation, and an explicit refusal to mistake that percentage for proof of a particular breeding policy, a racial group's future, or the whole social reproduction of a settler state.

References

Alphonso, Gwendoline. 2023. "Expropriating Reproduction, Generating Property-Enslaved Childbearing, Property Law & Racial Capitalism in the American South." APSA Preprints. https://doi.org/10.33774/apsa-2023-2nnzm. Preprint-not independently peer reviewed.

Gibson, Campbell, and Kay Jung. 2002. Historical Census Statistics on Population Totals by Race, 1790-1990, and by Hispanic Origin, 1970-1990. U.S. Census Bureau Working Paper 56. https://www2.census.gov/library/working-papers/2002/demo/pop-twps0056.pdf.

Hacker, J. David. 2020. "From '20. and odd' to 10 million: The growth of the slave population in the United States." Slavery & Abolition 41(4): 840-855. https://doi.org/10.1080/0144039X.2020.1755502. Open text: https://pmc.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/articles/PMC7716878/.

Haines, Michael R. 1994. "The Population of the United States, 1790-1920." NBER Historical Working Paper 56. https://doi.org/10.3386/h0056.

Haines, Michael R., and Richard Sutch. 2006. "National population and the demographic components of change: 1790-2000." Historical Statistics of the United States: Millennial Edition, Part A, Table Aa9-Aa14. Cambridge University Press.

https://hsus.cambridge.org/HSUSWeb/toc/treeTablePathIdAa9-14.html.

Haines, Michael R. 2006. "Components of population growth, by decade: 1790-2000." Historical Statistics of the United States: Millennial Edition, Table Aa15-Aa21. https://hsus.cambridge.org/HSUSWeb/toc/treeTablePathIdAa15-21.html.

Morgan, Jennifer L. 2021. Reckoning with Slavery: Gender, Kinship, and Capitalism in the Early Black Atlantic. Duke University Press. https://doi.org/10.1215/9781478021452.

Spillers, Hortense J. 1987. "Mama's Baby, Papa's Maybe: An American Grammar Book." Diacritics 17(2): 65-81.

Wanamaker, Marianne H. 2014. "Fertility and the Price of Children: Evidence from Slavery and Slave Emancipation." Journal of Economic History 74(4): 1045-1071. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022050714000850.

U.S. Census Bureau. "Censuses of American Indians." Historical census coverage guidance. https://www.census.gov/about/history/census-records-family-history/census-records/censuses-of-american-indians.html.

Commission-specific original sources and critical evidence receiving

The source-annotated bibliography and 23-claim evidence crosswalk makes the numerator, denominator, legal effects, economic interpretation, and counterfindings independently identifiable. The white fertility-estimand note documents incompatible fertility measures; the captive reproductive expropriation note separates directly coerced reproduction, inherited legal status, claims on possible future issue, and forced interstate transfer. The modeled 17% fraction does not measure the prevalence of any one of those specific property or coercion mechanisms.

The source most improperly neglected previously is Djeliid (2024), which expressly examines enslavers compelling reproduction, coerced pairings and enslaved men assigned reproductive exploitation as "stock men." It rules out a blanket suggestion that no deliberate coercive reproduction was documented. Yet neither its cases nor Hacker's aggregate estimated births give the population fraction attributable to purposefully directed conceptions. That prevalence remains an original archival sampling problem, not a statistic to manufacture.

The original legal conversion of some such newborns into hereditary bondage is explicit in Virginia General Assembly Act XII (1662). Alphonso (2023) argues for capitalization of future issue as an additional legal-economic relation, but the article remains a preprint with underlying cases yet to be verified. A distinct channel is the domestic forced movement of already existing people from Upper to Lower South, which cannot be added to a birth numerator. Domestic trade historical synthesis. For political effects, Article I Section 2 codified apportionment counting people under slavery but excluding "Indians not taxed"; the 1850 slave and free schedules demonstrate status-differentiated enumeration. Neither is an all-birth registration.

White-fertility competing models: Haines-Hacker (2006), Hacker (2003), and Hacker-Haines-Jaremski (2021) differ in age-, marriage- and mortality-sensitive estimands. Their tension must be resolved before testing the client's proposed local settler self-replacement mechanism. The nationally high 1790-1860 natural-increase contribution is not a claim that every local white settler lineage replaced itself without migration.

Reproducible scope: The Science-source data carrier preserves historical inputs, the assumed 1790s crude birth rate, and sensitivity calculations. It is software-readable through Engineering's CAIRN record-reader when the real authorized Science source is mounted; writing the JSON file does not prove the current L-Space service has ingested it.

Additional substantive sources requiring review before submission

Djeliid, Aisha. 2024. "'The master wished to reproduce': slavery, forced intimacy, and enslavers' interference in sexual relationships in the antebellum South, 1808-1861." American Nineteenth Century History 25 (1): 21-43. https://doi.org/10.1080/14664658.2024.2317499.

Virginia General Assembly. 1662. Act XII, concerning children born to enslaved mothers. In W. W. Hening, The Statutes at Large, vol. 2, p. 170. https://encyclopediavirginia.org/primary-documents/negro-womens-children-to-serve-according-to-the-condition-of-the-mother-1662/.

Haines, Michael R., and J. David Hacker. 2006. "The Puzzle of the Antebellum Fertility Decline in the United States: New Evidence and Reconsideration." NBER Working Paper 12571. https://www.nber.org/papers/w12571.

Hacker, J. David. 2003. "Rethinking the 'Early' Decline of Marital Fertility in the United States." Demography 40 (4): 605-620. https://doi.org/10.1353/dem.2003.0035.

Hacker, J. David, Michael R. Haines, and Matthew Jaremski. 2021. "Early Fertility Decline in the United States: Tests of Alternative Hypotheses Using New IPUMS Complete-Count Census Microdata and Enhanced County-Level Data." Research in Economic History 37: 89-128. https://pmc.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/articles/PMC9409409/.

Declarations and hypothetical submission conditions

Authorship: The original question came from a client commission. The author's identity, consent to quoted attribution, contributions and final byline are not yet established. This manuscript contains no private client quotation and has not been submitted.

Competing interests/funding: Not ascertained; no false declaration of their absence.

Ethics: Historical aggregate public estimates only; no individual health or family case records used. Individual births and descendants are not depersonalized into a claim about hereditary fitness.

Data/code availability: Exact source values, annual estimates, calculation definitions and sensitivity data are held in the Science repository at \`services/social-science-services-section/services/sociology-science-services-section/data/records/2026-10-17-captive-birth-shares-source-series.json\`. The source-directed CAIRN record-reader implementation is in \`red-cup-engineering/knowledge-system-server\` commit \`910dedb6e00b52954c86501f45034f69b743bcde\`. A local matching NI-content reader exercise exists, but no claim is made of installed L-Space/MetroPlat receiving or public deposition. If submitted, sources and code must be archived at a permanent accessible citation under appropriate licenses and participant authorizations.

Minimum gates before hypothetical submission: (1) independently re-extract Haines-Sutch's official series and documentation and Hacker's Table 1, including publication-specific rounding; (2) propagate realistic captive-numerator uncertainty and geographic coverage instead of reporting scenario ranges as confidence bands; (3) confirm the precise 1790s boundary assumption and explore 1776-1789 only if sources permit; (4) obtain scholarly historical-demography review on stock-flow consistency; (5) research the applicability and availability of free/enslaved births by maternal legal condition across jurisdictions; (6) settle client authorship and original-research rights; (7) transform the draft into the selected journal's required anonymous format; and (8) ensure receiving of the source archive and analysis code by a genuine scientific consumer. These steps remain open-not implied completed by the present result.